on marriage in order to fulfil their duty to have children and take care of their home (see Jacoby 2010). Importantly, as extensive military experience, including official combat experience, is a de facto prerequisite for high-ranking political positions, women are in effect banned from reaching high-level positions in either the civilian or the military administration:

> They say women are not qualified enough … [but] after they get married, mostly the [women] have to quit their job, so how can they get many years' experience? Right? Because first they have to take care of their family, they have to take care of their kids so they will get no more chance to be a leader or a [high-ranking] leader in the military. Only men. Why do these men not quit their job?[12]

Women's roles in conflict are then reflective of gendered divisions of labour, from the household to the state. As Parashar shows with regards to the Maoist conflict in India, alternative shadow economies centred on the household provide non-state armed groups with important supplies and support (2013, p. 43). Similarly, in Kachin State, interviews reveal how normative gendered roles centred on the household are essential for the effective running of the war machinery: mothers and wives fulfil feminized duties for the army, such as sewing uniforms for the troops, sending food to the frontlines, and nursing wounded soldiers.

The reproduction of dominant gendered divisions of labour in the army means that women's inclusion in the KIA/KIO does not actually upset the gendered status quo in any meaningful way. As women are largely prevented from participating in decision-making processes, opportunities to address women's marginalization are limited. In other words, by excluding women, normative gendered identities and structures are preserved, leaving little room for redress or transformation to take place.

GENDERED INSECURITY AND GENDERED RELATIONS IN THE COMMUNITY

As of 2014, no women were employed in decision-making positions at the township level in Myanmar, including in Kachin State (Minoletti 2014, p. 10). The three seats reserved for members of the Kachin army's women's wing, the KWA, in the KIO's governing body were empty. How do we explain this systematic exclusion of Kachin women from positions of influence and power? In addition to the gendered division of labour, as discussed